BUS322 – ORGANISATIONAL BEHAVIOUR

MODULE ONE

UNIT 1: MANAGEMENT PERSPECTIVES

1.0 Introduction

Management is often described through three dimensions: **technical** competence (job-specific methods and knowledge), **conceptual** ability (seeing how activities fit together), and **human** ability (working effectively with people). Organisational behaviour deals especially with the conceptual and human dimensions, which help managers get results through employees.

3.1 Management Perspectives

Management can be understood as **people** who perform managerial duties, **a discipline** of organised knowledge, **a profession** or career, **an art and science**, and most usefully **a process**. As an art it applies practical skill; as a science it uses tested principles. As a process it coordinates people and scarce resources towards agreed objectives. Effectiveness means meeting objectives; efficiency means using resources economically.

PAST QUESTION — 2025_2, Q1(a), 10 marks — Explain management and its major dimensions.

Answer: Management is the process of achieving organisational objectives by coordinating people and available resources. Its three dimensions are (1) technical competence: mastery of tools, methods and specialised work; (2) conceptual competence: understanding the organisation as a whole and seeing relationships among departments; and (3) human competence: communicating, motivating, leading and cooperating with other people. The three dimensions complement one another.

Meaning of Management.

Peter Drucker describes management as the specific organ of the business enterprise; MacFarlan emphasises creating and operating a purposeful organisation through coordinated human effort; Koontz, O'Donnell and Weihrich stress creating an environment in which people work together effectively. Rosemary Stewart summarises the process as **deciding what to do and getting others to do it**. Thus management involves goals, work through people and allocation of limited resources.

3.2 The Management Functions

Managerial functions are **planning, organising, staffing, directing, coordinating and controlling**. **Planning** determines goals and means; **organising** allocates work, authority and resources; **staffing** recruits, selects and develops suitable people; **directing** leads, guides and motivates; **coordinating** harmonises individual and departmental efforts; **controlling** checks actual results against planned standards and corrects deviations.

PAST QUESTIONS — 2023_1 Q1(a); 2023_2 Q1(a); 2024_1 Q1(a); 2025_2 Q1(b) — Explain the core management functions.

Answer: Planning means identifying objectives and deciding the best course of action. Organising means grouping tasks and allocating responsibility and resources. Staffing ensures that competent people fill positions and are developed for future work. Directing provides guidance, supervision, leadership and motivation. Coordinating unifies different efforts so that departments do not work at cross-purposes. Controlling measures performance against plans and takes corrective action. These functions are interrelated and apply at every management level.

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3.3 Management and Administration

The terms overlap. **Management is the wider process** of accomplishing goals, while **administration** is concerned particularly with designing, applying and maintaining systems and procedures through which plans are carried out. Administration has traditionally been associated with the public sector, but both terms are used across public and private organisations.

PAST QUESTION — 2023_2 Q1(b), 5 marks — Explain administration.

Answer: Administration is the part of the management process concerned with establishing and operating procedures, implementing programmes, communicating policies, monitoring activities and ensuring that work follows approved plans. It supports the wider management process of achieving organisational objectives.

Unit Quick Revision: Three dimensions: technical, conceptual, human. Six functions: planning, organising, staffing, directing, coordinating, controlling. Management is wider than administration.

UNIT 2: THE STUFF OF ORGANISATIONAL BEHAVIOUR

1.0 Introduction

Organisations succeed through people, not only through money, machines and formal rules. A manager therefore needs to understand why staff members respond differently to the same conditions.

3.1 Definition and Perspectives of Organisational Behaviour

Organisational Behaviour (OB) is the scientific study of the behaviour of individuals, groups and organisational processes at work. Its concerns are to **understand, predict and influence** behaviour, improve organisational effectiveness, and enhance employees' wellbeing. It emerged from behavioural sciences such as psychology, sociology and political science. OB is a behavioural approach to management, not a replacement for management itself.

PAST QUESTIONS — 2019_1 Q1(a); 2023_1 Q1(b); 2023_2 Q1(c) — Explain organisational behaviour as a field of study and distinguish it from management.

Answer: Organisational behaviour is the systematic study of how individuals, groups and organisational systems influence conduct at work. It uses behavioural-science evidence to explain, predict and improve human behaviour, productivity, satisfaction and wellbeing. Management is the wider process of planning, organising, staffing, directing, coordinating and controlling resources to achieve objectives. OB concentrates specifically on the human and behavioural side of that wider process.

3.2 Influences on Behaviour in an Organisation

Four connected dimensions influence behaviour: **the individual** (needs, attitudes, perception, motives, personality and skill); **the group** (norms, leadership, group pressure, informal relations); **the organisation** (structure, policies, technology and management style); and **the environment** (government actions, economic conditions, social and technological changes). Understanding only one dimension gives an incomplete picture.

PAST QUESTION — 2019_1 Q1(b), 15 marks — Explain the relationships between individual, group and organisation and organisational behaviour.

Answer: The individual contributes personal characteristics—needs, attitudes, values and abilities—which affect responses to work. Groups shape individuals through shared norms, roles, leadership, social relationships and pressure to conform. The organisation provides the formal structure, authority, technology, rules and management systems within which people and groups work. These dimensions continually interact, and their combined influence determines behaviour and organisational effectiveness.

3.3 Cultural Influences and Organisational Behaviour

Culture is learned and socially transmitted behaviour. It shapes attitudes towards work and operates both in the wider society and within the organisation. Hofstede's cultural dimensions include **power distance** (acceptance of unequal authority), **individualism** (personal rather than collective interests), **uncertainty avoidance** (comfort with unpredictability), and **masculinity** (emphasis on achievement and material success rather than care and quality of life). Cultural differences affect management and work practices.

PAST QUESTION — 2023_2 Q1(d), 5 marks — Explain cultural influence on behaviour.

Answer: Culture shapes employees' expectations, orientation to work, acceptable conduct and response to authority. Organisational cultures also transmit shared values and practices. Hofstede's four dimensions—power distance, individualism, uncertainty avoidance and masculinity—help explain differences in behaviour and structure between organisations and societies.

Unit Quick Revision: OB = understand, predict and influence behaviour. Four influences: individual, group, organisation and environment. Four cultural dimensions: power distance, individualism, uncertainty avoidance, masculinity.

UNIT 3: PRINCIPLES AND PRACTICES IN ORGANISATIONS

1.0 Introduction

An organisation brings people and resources together so that shared goals can be accomplished through coordinated work.

3.1 What is an Organisation?

An **organisation** is a deliberately structured human grouping pursuing specified goals. It has people and groups interacting, defined tasks, cooperative activities, objectives and an **input–output process**. Its structure helps with communication, command and coordination.

3.2 Types of Organisations

Formal organisation: intentionally established with recognised authority, allocated tasks, procedures, policies and long-term objectives. **Informal organisation:** develops spontaneously through social relationships and shared interests alongside the formal system. It may increase cooperation and motivation but can also bypass official channels or make behaviour unpredictable.

PAST QUESTIONS — 2019_1 Q2(a); 2023_1 Q1(c); 2023_2 Q2(a) — Distinguish formal and informal organisations; explain why both are needed.

Answer: A formal organisation is deliberately planned, with a hierarchy, assigned duties, rules, policies and official channels of authority. It ensures accountability, coordination and goal achievement. An informal organisation arises naturally from social interaction and friendship among workers without an official plan. It meets social needs, improves morale and cooperation, and supports information flow. Both coexist: the formal system gives order; the informal system helps employees relate and cooperate, though it may sometimes conflict with official procedures.

3.3 Principles of Organisation — Henri Fayol

Fayol's **fourteen principles** are: (1) division of work—specialisation; (2) authority and responsibility—right to direct with accountability; (3) discipline—obedience to rules; (4) unity of command—one immediate superior; (5) unity of direction—one goal and plan; (6) subordination of individual interest to the common interest; (7) remuneration—fair pay; (8) centralisation—appropriate concentration or distribution of authority; (9) scalar chain—clear line of command; (10) order—proper arrangement of people and resources; (11) equity—fairness and justice; (12) stability of tenure—continuity and security; (13) esprit de corps—unity and team spirit; and (14) initiative—opportunity for workers to contribute ideas.

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PAST QUESTIONS — 2023_2 Q2(b); 2024_1 Q4(a); 2025_2 Q1(c) — State or explain Fayol's principles of organisation (five or twelve as requested).

Answer: Fayol's principles are: division of work, authority and responsibility, discipline, unity of command, unity of direction, subordination of individual interest, remuneration, centralisation, scalar chain, order, equity, stability of tenure, esprit de corps and initiative. To explain any five: division of work improves skill through specialisation; unity of command gives an employee one superior; authority should be matched with responsibility; equity promotes fair treatment; and esprit de corps encourages team spirit. The fourteen principles cover specialisation, authority, discipline, coordination, fairness and cooperation.

3.4 Frederick W. Taylor (1856–1915): Scientific Management Movement

Taylor, described as the **father of scientific management**, sought to reduce inefficiency through better tools, systematic work methods, standardisation and cooperation. His six named principles are: **time study** (measure required work time); **piece-rate** (pay linked to standard output); **separation of planning from performance**; **scientific methods of work** and worker training; **managerial control**; and **functional management** (specialist supervision and duties).

PAST QUESTIONS — 2019_1 Q3; 2023_2 Q3(a) — Discuss Taylor's principles and their relevance to management.

Answer: Taylor's scientific management argues that methods of work should be examined and standardised rather than left entirely to trial and error. Time study establishes performance standards; piece-rate links wages to output; separating planning from doing allows management to design procedures; scientific methods and training improve work; managerial control checks conformity with standards; and functional management brings relevant specialist guidance. These principles relate to productivity measurement, workflow improvement, worker training and the organisation of responsibility.

3.5 Urwick and Gulick (1937)

Their description of the executive's work is **POSDCORB**: Planning, Organising, Staffing, Directing, Coordinating, Reporting and Budgeting. An expanded form is **POSDCORBE**, adding Evaluation.

PAST QUESTION — 2023_2 Q3(b), 5 marks — What does POSDCORBE stand for?

Answer: P—Planning; O—Organising; S—Staffing; D—Directing; C—Coordinating; R—Reporting; B—Budgeting; E—Evaluation.

Unit Quick Revision: Formal versus informal organisations; Fayol's 14 principles; Taylor's six scientific-management principles; POSDCORBE.

UNIT 4: ROLES AND ROLE EXPECTATIONS

1.0 Introduction

Workers occupy several positions at once—employee, colleague, parent, community member—and each position attracts expectations. Clashing expectations help explain tension at work.

3.1 The Nature of Roles

A **role** is a position linked to established expectations about how its holder should behave. Organisational roles help people know what to do, their authority and the standards they must meet. Employees also bring social and personal roles into the workplace.

PAST QUESTION — 2024_1 Q1(b), 6 marks — Explain the importance of the organisational role in organisational behaviour.

Answer: A role identifies the conduct, tasks and responsibilities expected of a position. It helps coordinate relationships, clarifies standards for performance and makes employees' behaviour more predictable. When expectations are unclear or contradictory, tension, stress and ineffective performance may follow.

3.2 Role Conflict and Role Ambiguity

Role conflict exists where job tasks, rules, resources or other people make incompatible demands. Role conflicts include **inter-sender conflict** (different people make incompatible demands), **intra-sender conflict** (conflicting demands from one sender), **inter-role conflict** (demands of different roles clash) and **person-role conflict** (role demands contradict personal beliefs). **Role ambiguity** is uncertainty caused by insufficient information about a role. **Task ambiguity** concerns duties and expected conduct; **emotional ambiguity** concerns one's standing or a supervisor's opinion.

PAST QUESTIONS — 2023_1 Q2(a); 2023_2 Q4(a); 2025_2 Q2(a) — Explain role, role conflict and role ambiguity, and distinguish the latter two.

Answer: A role is a position with expected patterns of behaviour. Role conflict occurs when two or more expectations are incompatible—for example, a supervisor is expected to satisfy both management and workers. Role ambiguity means the expectations or information are unclear, such as an employee not knowing which task has priority. Conflict involves competing demands; ambiguity involves uncertainty. Both may create stress and reduce performance.

3.3 Types of Conflict

Intra-individual conflict occurs within a person. Frustration arises when a need is blocked; goal conflict may be approach–approach (two attractive alternatives), approach–avoidance (one option with both benefits and costs) or avoidance–avoidance (two unattractive alternatives). **Interpersonal conflict** is between individuals; **intergroup conflict** is between groups; and **organisational conflict** may combine clashes of interests, resources, roles, personalities and perceptions.

PAST QUESTION — 2023_2 Q4(b), 5 marks — Mention the types of conflict.

Answer: The principal levels are intra-individual conflict, interpersonal conflict, intergroup conflict and organisational conflict. Intra-individual conflict includes frustration and the three forms of goal conflict: approach–approach, approach–avoidance and avoidance–avoidance.

3.4 Strategies for Conflict Resolution (Managing Conflict)

Two key dimensions are **assertion** (pursuing one's position) and **cooperation** (seeking a solution together). Their combination produces **competing**, **collaborating**, **compromising**, **avoiding** and **accommodating**. Other conflict outcomes include **lose–lose** (both sides surrender something), **win–lose** (one wins at the other's expense), and **win–win** (joint problem-solving to meet both parties' needs).

PAST QUESTION — 2024_1 Q1(c), 9 marks — Discuss how group conflicts may be classified according to outcomes.

Answer: Lose–lose: neither party achieves all its objectives; settlement often depends on mutual sacrifice or avoidance. Win–lose: one party obtains its preferred outcome and the other loses, often increasing bitterness despite a short-term victory. Win–win: parties collaborate to find a mutually acceptable solution; this is the preferred problem-solving approach because it attends to both sides' needs.

3.5 The Role of Conflict in Today's Organisations

Conflict is not automatically destructive. **Constructive effects** may include exposing problems, stimulating new ideas, increasing awareness of differences and encouraging problem-solving. **Destructive effects** include bitterness, reduced cooperation, stress, wasted time and disruption of performance. Effective managers manage and channel conflict rather than assuming all disagreement should disappear.

PAST QUESTION — 2024_1 Q4(b) — List two constructive and two destructive effects of conflict.

Answer: Constructive: (1) conflict reveals underlying problems that need attention; (2) it can stimulate discussion, innovation and better solutions. Destructive: (1) it can create hostility and reduce cooperation; (2) it can cause stress and lower productivity.

Unit Quick Revision: Role = position plus expectations. Conflict = incompatible demands; ambiguity = unclear demands. Conflict can be intra-individual, interpersonal, intergroup or organisational. Aim for problem-solving, not merely victory.

UNIT 5: MANAGEMENT OF CHANGE

1.0 Introduction

Organisations continually adjust to changing technology, knowledge, products, services and social conditions. Managers must balance the need for renewal with employees' need for stability.

3.1 The Nature of Change

Change means altering an existing situation, practice or condition. Because an organisation operates in a wider society, it cannot remain permanently unchanged. Managers should anticipate, plan and direct useful change rather than allow every adjustment to happen by accident.

3.2 External and Internal Causes of Change and Rate of Change

Major drivers include **technological change** (new processes, machines and job methods), **knowledge explosion** (rapidly expanding information), **product and service obsolescence** (shorter product life cycles) and **social change** (new values, expectations and social conditions). The impetus for change may come from outside an organisation or from internal operations, structures and staff needs. The rate and intensity of change affect the adjustment required.

PAST QUESTIONS — 2023_2 Q5(a); 2025_2 Q2(b) — Explain change and its external/internal causes and rate.

Answer: Change is the alteration of existing organisational conditions or methods. Important external pressures are advances in technology, the growth of knowledge, changing products and services, and wider social changes. Internal pressures arise when present work methods, staffing or organisational arrangements no longer serve objectives effectively. Rate means how quickly changes occur; rapid change often creates more adjustment pressure than gradual change.

3.3 Impact of Change on Employees and the Organisation

Change may improve processes and opportunities, but it can also unsettle routines, relationships, status, security and work expectations. Individuals respond differently: some welcome improvements; others experience uncertainty, stress or frustration.

3.4 Approaches to Introducing Change

Before introducing change, identify what must change, why it is necessary, who will be affected and how it will be communicated. The manner and timing of introduction matter greatly. Sudden changes without consultation may provoke opposition; participation, clear information and adequate preparation help adjustment.

3.5 Response to Change

Possible responses include **positive** responses (acceptance and cooperation), **negative** responses (opposition and resistance), and **neutral** responses (apparent indifference). Silence should not always be interpreted as agreement; it may reflect apathy or poor communication.

3.6 Implications of Resistance to Change

Resistance can disrupt performance, encourage sabotage, expose deficiencies in communication, reveal a poorly designed change programme, indicate unrealistic timing, or show threats to status and security. Resistance should therefore be treated as information about the change process, not automatically as wrongdoing.

PAST QUESTION — 2024_1 Q3(b), 5 marks — Outline five implications of resistance to change.

Answer: Resistance may (1) disrupt work performance; (2) lead to sabotage or deliberate obstruction; (3) reveal inadequate communication of the proposed change; (4) indicate that the method of introducing change needs improvement; and (5) show that the timing is unrealistic or that staff security and status have been threatened.

3.7 Strategies for Responding to External Challenges for Change

Organisations may initially **resist** an external challenge by ignoring or discrediting it, denying responsibility or using counter-arguments. They may also seek **compromise** by making concessions and negotiating. Managers should consider whether the challenge exposes a genuine need for adjustment.

3.8 Managing Resistance to Change

Practical measures include explaining objectives clearly, involving workers in planning, encouraging views and feedback, communicating reasons and consequences, respecting group habits, supporting retraining, protecting status and security where possible, preparing in good time, demonstrating advantages of the new method, and using trusted change initiators.

PAST QUESTIONS — 2023_1 Q2(b); 2025_2 Q3(a) — How can managers manage resistance to change?

Answer: State clearly the purpose and expected benefit of change; involve affected employees in planning; communicate fully and allow staff to express concerns; consider existing group habits; provide retraining and minimise threats to security and status; allow adequate preparation time; show the advantages of the new arrangement; and use leaders whom employees trust. Resistance can signal a problem requiring managerial attention.

Unit Quick Revision: Forces of change: technology, knowledge, obsolescence, social developments. Responses: positive, negative and neutral. Involve people and communicate before implementing changes.

MODULE TWO

UNIT 1: POWER AND CONTROL

1.0 Introduction

The ability to influence others affects leadership, decision-making and cooperation. Power may exist even when a person chooses not to exercise it.

3.1 The Concept of Power

Power is the potential or capacity of a person or group to influence others and bring about changes in their behaviour. Power differs from **authority**, which is the formally recognised right to act or command. Using power creates influence, but a person may possess power without exercising it.

3.2 The Bases of Power

French and Raven originally described five major bases: **coercive** (fear of punishment), **expert** (special knowledge and competence), **legitimate** (official position or accepted authority), **referent** (admiration or identification with a person), and **reward** (ability to provide valued benefits). Two further bases are **information power** (valuable knowledge or access to information) and **connection power** (useful links with influential people).

PAST QUESTIONS — 2019_1 Q2(b); 2023_1 Q3(a); 2023_2 Q5(b); 2025_2 Q3(b) — Define power and explain its bases (especially the five traditional bases).

Answer: Power is the capacity or potential to influence another person's behaviour. The five traditional bases are (1) coercive: securing compliance through threats or punishment; (2) expert: influence arising from specialised competence; (3) legitimate: power attached to a recognised office; (4) referent: influence because others respect, admire or identify with the holder; and (5) reward: influence through wages, promotion, praise or other benefits. Two further recognised bases are information power and connection power as additional bases.

3.3 The Cost of Using Power

Power is not cost-free. A manager considering dismissal, for example, should weigh recruitment costs, reactions of colleagues and damage to reputation. Importantly,, other things equal, the higher the cost of exercising a particular source of power, the less useful that source may be.

3.4 Power Blocs

Power blocs are individuals or groups with enough influence to affect organisational decisions. Examples given include the **board of directors**, management, employees with specialist knowledge, and other groups whose positions or relationships make them influential. Understanding power blocs helps managers know whose cooperation or concerns influence action.

Unit Quick Revision: Five traditional power bases: coercive, expert, legitimate, referent and reward. Add information and connection power. Authority comes from an office; power may also come from expertise, respect and relationships.

UNIT 2: THE CONCEPT OF STATUS AND OCCUPATIONAL PRESTIGE

1.0 Introduction

People attach significance to rank and social recognition. Status affects how employees are treated, how much influence they have and their sense of belonging.

3.1 The Meaning of Status

Status is a person's recognised social rank in relation to others. It may be **formal** (connected to an officially designated position) or **informal** (conferred by colleagues through respect, admiration or social relations). **Status** indicates who someone is in a social hierarchy; **role** indicates what they are expected to do.

3.2 Sources of Status

Important examples include **occupation, wealth, culture, personal achievement, education and family background** as important social sources of status. Organisational position and authority may also confer status. For example, a person may be respected because of educational qualification, professional achievement or holding a senior post.

PAST QUESTION — 2023_1 Q3(b), 5 marks — Mention five sources of status.

Answer: Five sources of status are (1) occupation, (2) wealth, (3) culture or traditional position, (4) personal achievement, and (5) education. Family background is another source identified in the material.

3.3 Status Comparison and Reactions to Comparison

People compare their standing and privileges with those of others. High-status members often exercise greater influence and participate more in important activities. Key concepts include **distributive justice**—whether outcomes are proportional to effort and contribution—and **status congruence**, or consistency between the different signs of a person's rank. Comparisons considered unfair may produce frustration and strain.

3.4 Occupational Prestige

Occupational prestige is the social respect associated with a particular occupation, often influenced by the education, training, earnings and perceived importance attached to it. Occupational prestige is related to social stratification, self-image and job satisfaction.

Unit Quick Revision: Status = recognised rank; role = expected behaviour. Sources include occupation, wealth, culture, achievement, education and family background. Status comparisons can affect satisfaction and stress.

UNIT 3: PERCEPTION

1.0 Introduction

People do not always act on the same "objective" picture of a workplace. They interpret events through their own senses, expectations and experiences.

3.1 The Stuff of Perception

Perception is the active process of selecting, organising and interpreting information received through the senses to make sense of the surrounding world. Two staff members can witness the same event and interpret it differently. Perception therefore helps explain individual differences in behaviour.

PAST QUESTIONS — 2019_1 Q4(a); 2025_2 Q4(a) — Define perception and distinguish it from perceptual selectivity.

Answer: Perception is the process by which a person selects, organises and interprets sensory information to form an understanding of the environment. Perceptual selectivity is the attention stage of that process: out of numerous available stimuli, the person notices only some. Thus perception is the complete interpretive process, while selectivity concerns which stimuli receive attention.

3.2 The Principles of Perceptual Selectivity

Perceptual selectivity explains why some stimuli catch attention while others are ignored. The external principles described are: **intensity** (strong stimuli stand out); **size** (large items attract notice); **contrast** (something unlike its background is noticed); **repetition** (repeated signals become harder to ignore); **motion** (movement draws attention); and **novelty and familiarity** (new or especially familiar situations may attract notice). Internal factors include **motives, attitudes and past experience**, which direct attention according to personal concerns.

PAST QUESTIONS — 2019_1 Q4(b); 2025_2 Q4(b) — Discuss with examples the principles of perceptual selectivity: intensity, size, contrast, repetition and motion.

Answer: Intensity: a loud sound or bright light gets attention more readily than a weak one. Size: a large notice or machine is more noticeable than a small one. Contrast: an unusual sign or a sudden silence on a noisy factory floor stands out from its background. Repetition: a message heard or seen repeatedly is more likely to be noticed. Motion: moving objects are more likely to attract attention than stationary ones. Novelty and familiarity are additional influences. Personal motives, attitudes and earlier experiences influence what each person notices.

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3.3 Social Perception

Social perception is how we form and interpret impressions of other people. It depends on characteristics of both the perceiver and the person perceived, such as experience, status, role and the information available. **Stereotyping** involves judging an individual mainly by assumed traits of a group. The **halo effect** occurs when an overall favourable or unfavourable impression, or a single conspicuous trait, influences judgments about other traits or performance. Both can produce inaccurate employee appraisal.

PAST QUESTION — 2024_1 Q2(a), 7 marks — Explain stereotyping and the halo effect as aspects of social perception.

Answer: Stereotyping is judging someone by broad expectations attached to the group or category to which the person belongs, instead of assessing personal evidence. The halo effect is allowing a general impression or one noticeable characteristic to shape judgments about other characteristics. For example, a supervisor may assume that a well-dressed employee is also competent without checking actual work results. Both are common perceptual errors.

Unit Quick Revision: Perception = selection + organisation + interpretation. Selectivity: intensity, size, contrast, repetition, motion, novelty/familiarity. Social errors: stereotyping and halo effect.

UNIT 4: PERSONALITY CONCEPT

1.0 Introduction

Personality helps explain why people have different patterns of thought, emotion and behaviour, even in similar organisational situations.

3.1 Conceptual Descriptions of the Meaning of Personality

Personality refers to the relatively characteristic pattern of an individual's behaviours, dispositions and reactions. The concept is difficult to define uniformly because different scholars explain its origin differently and a person may behave differently across situations. Personality influences adjustment, work relations, leadership and conflict.

3.2 Determination of Personality

The main examples are four broad determinants: **inherited body constitution** (physiological or genetic factors), **social or cultural influences** (learned values and practices), **roles** (expectations attached to positions), and **situational factors** (conditions surrounding behaviour). It also recounts Sheldon's physical-type categories: **endomorphic**, **mesomorphic** and **ectomorphic**.

3.3 Theories of Personality Development

Two theories feature prominently: **Freud's psycho-analytical theory** and **trait theory**. Freud emphasises childhood experience and the interaction of the **id** (pleasure-seeking impulses), **ego** (adjustment to reality) and **superego** (internal moral standards). Freud links later difficulties to fixation at an earlier developmental stage.

3.3.1 Freudian Development Stages

There are five stages: **oral** (about birth to one year; pleasure centred on the mouth), **anal** (about one to three years; control surrounding elimination), **phallic** (attention to sexual differences and parents), **latency** (relative quieting of earlier sexual interests, with attention to activities and peers), and **genital** (approximately age thirteen onward; adolescent development). Freud argues that unresolved conflict or fixation at a stage can influence adult personality.

PAST QUESTION — 2024_1 Q5(b), 5 marks — Enumerate the Freudian development stages.

Answer: The five Freudian stages are (1) oral stage, (2) anal stage, (3) phallic stage, (4) latency stage, and (5) genital stage.

3.3.2 Trait Theory of Personality — Eysenck

A **trait** is a relatively consistent component of personality. Eysenck combines two dimensions—**stable versus unstable** and **introverted versus extroverted**—to form four characteristic types: **stable introvert (phlegmatic)**, **unstable introvert (melancholic)**, **stable extrovert (sanguine)**, and **unstable extrovert (choleric)**. Introverts tend towards reserve; extroverts are more outgoing. Stability concerns emotional control.

PAST QUESTION — 2024_1 Q5(a), 10 marks — Explain the four personality types according to Eysenck.

Answer: (1) Stable introvert (phlegmatic): quiet, calm, careful, thoughtful and reliable. (2) Unstable introvert (melancholic): reserved, pessimistic, anxious and sensitive. (3) Stable extrovert (sanguine): sociable, lively, outgoing and responsive to others. (4) Unstable extrovert (choleric): active and outgoing but excitable, impulsive or emotionally changeable. These are combinations of two dimensions: emotional stability/instability and introversion/extroversion.

Unit Quick Revision: Determinants: biological, cultural, role and situation. Freud: id–ego–superego; five development stages. Eysenck: stable/unstable × introvert/extrovert = four personality types.

UNIT 5: WORK GROUPS

1.0 Introduction

Very few employees work in complete isolation. Groups are created by work assignments and also arise naturally when people interact.

3.1 The Meaning of a Work Group

A **work group** is a collection of people who interact, recognise some common purpose or relationship, and influence one another while working. Organisational tasks, relationships and social needs often create groups.

3.2 Characteristics of Groups

Groups normally show **interaction**, shared purposes, mutual awareness, patterns of relationships, recognised norms and roles, and some degree of cohesion. Members may influence one another's attitudes, behaviour, output and standards. The strength of these characteristics differs across groups.

PAST QUESTIONS — 2023_1 Q4(a); 2025_2 Q5(a) — Define a work group and explain its characteristics.

Answer: A work group is a set of individuals who interact and influence one another through shared work or common interests. Its main characteristics include interaction among members, common aims, recognised roles, rules or norms, shared identity or belonging, interdependence and influence on members' behaviour. Groups may be deliberately constituted by management or develop informally.

3.3 Types of Groups

Formal groups are created for organisational purposes; examples include command groups consisting of a superior and immediate subordinates, and task groups set up to complete work. **Informal groups** arise from friendship, social contact or shared concerns. Informal forms include **horizontal cliques** (members of similar rank), **vertical cliques** (different ranks within a department), and **mixed cliques** (people across ranks or work areas).

3.4 The Purpose of a Group

Groups help divide and coordinate work, share information, provide assistance, support member needs, create belonging, influence behaviour, and improve the ability to complete tasks. Group loyalty can support performance, although excessive pressure to conform may also hinder sound judgment.

PAST QUESTION — 2024_1 Q2(b), 8 marks — Explain the purpose of a group in a workplace.

Answer: Work groups allow people to combine efforts towards shared objectives, divide and coordinate tasks, exchange information and skills, solve problems, provide social support, satisfy members' needs for belonging and recognition, and reinforce shared standards of work. Both the performance of organisational tasks and members' social needs are served.

3.5 Theories of Group Formation

The major explanations are **propinquity** (people affiliate through physical or work proximity), **interaction**, **similarity or balance** of interests and characteristics, and **exchange theory** (members continue interaction when anticipated rewards outweigh costs). Group affiliation therefore reflects contact, shared interests and perceived mutual benefit.

3.6 Group Dynamics and Stages of Development

Group dynamics examines how interaction, leadership, norms, cohesion and group processes influence member behaviour and effectiveness. The stages are the group-development stages in terms of **formation (forming)**, **development of goals (storming)**, **development of norms (norming)** and **development of leaders (performing)**. Effectiveness also depends on group size, composition, tasks, leadership, communication and goals.

PAST QUESTION — 2023_1 Q4(b), 5 marks — List the stages of group formation.

Answer: The stages described are (1) formation or forming; (2) development of group goals or storming; (3) development of group norms or norming; and (4) development of formal and informal leadership or performing.

Unit Quick Revision: Formal groups are planned; informal groups emerge naturally. Common informal cliques: horizontal, vertical and mixed. Group stages: forming, storming, norming, performing.

MODULE THREE

UNIT 1: COMMUNICATION IN ORGANISATIONS

1.0 Introduction

Managers spend much of their workday communicating. Instructions, information, feedback and shared understanding are essential for coordinated activity.

3.1 Defining Communication as a Concept

Communication is the meaningful exchange of ideas, information and understanding between people. It may occur through speech, writing, gestures, facial expressions or even silence. **Interpersonal communication** connects two people or small groups; **organisational communication** concerns the systems used to share information across an organisation and with relevant outsiders.

PAST QUESTION — 2023_1 Q5(a), 8 marks — Define and explain the kinds of organisational communication.

Answer: Communication is the process of transmitting information and meaning so that others understand a message. Interpersonal communication occurs directly between individuals or within small groups. Organisational communication is the structured flow of messages across employees, management levels, departments and relevant outside parties. In practice, messages may pass downward from managers, upward from subordinates, horizontally among colleagues, or across functions; effective communication requires understanding and feedback.

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3.2 Communication Process Model

The process follows the sequence as **thought/idea → encoding → transmission of message → reception → decoding → understanding by receiver → feedback**. **Noise** can interfere at any point. **Encoding** means choosing words, signs or symbols; **decoding** means interpreting them. Communication is not complete merely because a message was sent; feedback shows whether meaning has been understood.

3.3 The Communication Function in an Organisation

Communication helps establish and disseminate goals; organise resources; guide and motivate staff; develop relationships; integrate managerial functions; coordinate people and departments; and support decisions and control. Without adequate information, departments cannot cooperate efficiently.

3.4 Barriers and Breakdowns in Communication

Barriers may arise from the sender, the channel, the receiver or feedback. Major examples are **lack of planning** (unclear purpose), **semantic distortion** (different meanings attached to words), unsuitable or unreliable channels, information overload, **poor listening**, inconsistent verbal and nonverbal messages, emotional reactions, selective attention, distrust, premature evaluation, and failures to obtain feedback. Messages become distorted or incomplete and disagreements multiply.

PAST QUESTION — 2025_2 Q5(b), 6 marks — Discuss communication and the principal barriers to effective communication.

Answer: Communication is the exchange of information and meaning to secure shared understanding and coordinated action. Important barriers include failure to plan the message, unclear or ambiguous language, poorly selected communication channels, background noise or interruptions, selective listening and preconceived attitudes, emotional reactions, information overload, and lack of feedback. Managers reduce breakdowns by using clear language, matching the medium to the message, listening carefully and checking understanding.

3.5 Achieving Effective Communication

Effective communication requires clear communication arrangements, appropriate codes of conduct, good working relationships, active participation, sincerity and openness. The American Management Association's **ten commandments** include: clarify ideas; determine the real purpose; consider the physical and human setting; consult others when appropriate; mind both the message and its tone; convey something useful to the receiver; follow up; consider long-term effects; ensure actions agree with words; and seek to understand by listening well.

Unit Quick Revision: Process: idea → encoding → transmission → reception → decoding → understanding → feedback; noise can interrupt. Distinguish interpersonal from organisational communication. Clarity and feedback matter most.

UNIT 2: MOTIVATION

1.0 Introduction

Employees' willingness to give their best cannot be produced by planning or supervision alone. Motivation helps explain why one person persists with a task while another loses interest.

3.1 Motivation Concept and Characteristics

Motivation refers to drives, desires, needs and other forces that energise, direct and maintain behaviour towards a goal. It addresses **why people choose an action, how much effort they give and why they persist**. Motivated people may contribute to stronger performance, but different individuals are moved by different needs.

3.2 Theories of Motivation

Motivation theories are not complete explanations of all behaviour; rather, they help managers identify conditions that encourage work. One distinction is between **content theories** (what needs or incentives motivate employees) from **process theories** (how decisions, expectations and perceptions shape motivated action).

3.2.1 Content and Process Theories of Motivation

Content theories focus on needs or factors such as money, belonging, achievement and responsibility. **Process theories** explain the choices and mental processes behind work effort—for example, whether an employee expects work to produce a valued reward.

3.2.1.1 Human Resources Model: Theory X and Y

Douglas McGregor's **Theory X** assumes employees dislike work, prefer direction, avoid responsibility and require close control or external pressure. **Theory Y** assumes people can be energetic, exercise self-direction, accept responsibility, contribute ideas and develop when the conditions are suitable. A manager's assumptions affect leadership style and treatment of staff.

PAST QUESTION — 2023_1 Q5(b), 7 marks — Explain Theory X and Theory Y.

Answer: McGregor's Theory X portrays workers as naturally reluctant to work, unambitious, resistant to responsibility and in need of supervision, rewards or punishment. Theory Y portrays workers as capable of enjoying meaningful work, accepting responsibility, exercising self-control, using initiative and contributing to organisational improvement. Theory X tends to encourage close control; Theory Y encourages participation and responsibility.

3.2.1.2 Maslow's Hierarchy of Needs Theory

Maslow arranges needs from lower to higher levels: **physiological** (food, shelter), **safety/security**, **social/belonging**, **esteem**, and **self-actualisation** (fulfilment of potential). The model proposes that when needs at one level are substantially satisfied, their motivating power declines and higher-level needs receive attention.

3.2.1.3 Alderfer's Modified Need Hierarchy Theory

Alderfer condenses Maslow's hierarchy into **ERG**: **Existence** (survival and material security), **Relatedness** (relationships and belonging) and **Growth** (development, competence and fulfilment). Multiple need levels can influence people's behaviour.

3.2.1.4 Herzberg's Two-Factor Theory

Herzberg distinguishes **hygiene or maintenance factors** (salary, policies, supervision, conditions, security, relationships and status) from **motivators** (achievement, recognition, responsibility, advancement, growth and meaningful work). Poor hygiene factors cause dissatisfaction; their adequacy mainly removes dissatisfaction. Motivators are connected with positive satisfaction and stronger interest in work.

3.2.1.5 McClelland's Needs Theory of Motivation

McClelland identifies three important acquired needs: **achievement (nACH)**—desire to perform well; **affiliation (nAFF)**—desire for friendly relationships; and **power (nPWR)**—desire to influence others and events. Managers should recognise that people differ in the strengths of these needs.

Unit Quick Revision: Content asks WHAT motivates; process asks HOW. McGregor X/Y; Maslow's five levels; Alderfer ERG; Herzberg hygiene/motivators; McClelland achievement, affiliation, power.

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UNIT 3: MOTIVATIONAL PROCESSES

1.0 Introduction

This unit shifts from listing employees' needs to explaining how people decide to work hard, what they consider fair and how rewards affect future behaviour.

3.1 Process Theories of Motivation

The main examples are **expectancy theory, equity theory, goal-setting theory, attribution theory and reinforcement theory**. These explanations concern choices, comparisons, goals, interpretations of outcomes and consequences of behaviour.

3.1.1 Expectancy Theory of Motivation

Associated with **Victor Vroom**, expectancy theory says people are motivated when they value an outcome and believe their effort can help secure it. Staff are unlikely to exert much effort if they think performance cannot improve or if promised rewards are unimportant to them.

3.1.2 Equity Theory of Motivation

Employees compare their contributions and outcomes against those of others. Perceived **fairness (equity)** sustains positive work attitudes; perceived **inequity** may encourage workers to adjust their effort, seek different rewards, complain or withdraw.

3.1.3 Goal-Setting Theory

Clear, meaningful and sufficiently challenging goals can focus attention and direct effort. Commitment, understanding and feedback are needed. Goals should help workers know the standard expected and measure their progress.

3.1.4 Attribution Theory

People try to explain success and failure by attributing outcomes to causes within the person or to external conditions. These explanations affect expectations and later motivation. A supervisor should assess the circumstances before attributing poor performance solely to laziness.

3.1.5 Reinforcement Theory

Associated with **B. F. Skinner**, reinforcement theory explains how consequences affect behaviour. **Positive reinforcement** adds a desirable result after behaviour; **negative reinforcement** strengthens behaviour by removing or avoiding something unpleasant; **punishment** discourages unwanted behaviour. Negative reinforcement is not the same thing as punishment.

3.2 Job Enrichment and Job Enlargement

Managers may redesign jobs to make work more interesting and meaningful. These methods are related but not identical.

3.2.1 Job Enrichment

Job enrichment is vertical job expansion: giving workers greater responsibility, discretion, control, challenge and scope to see the outcome of their efforts. It may allow employees to choose methods, take part in decisions and receive direct feedback.

3.2.2 Job Enlargement

Job enlargement is horizontal expansion: adding more tasks at roughly the same level without necessarily increasing responsibility or authority. It can reduce monotonous repetition and widen task variety, though extra duties by themselves may not guarantee motivation.

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Unit Quick Revision: Expectancy = valued results and belief that effort works. Equity = perceived fairness. Reinforcement = consequences shape behaviour. Enrichment adds depth/responsibility; enlargement adds breadth/tasks.

UNIT 4: MONEY

1.0 Introduction

Money is an organisational reward, but its effectiveness depends on the employee's needs, expectations and how rewards are distributed.

3.1 Perspectives as to the Concept of Money

Money has both an **economic value** (buying goods and meeting basic needs) and a **symbolic value** (status, power, accomplishment and recognition). Economists and many managers tend to rank it highly as a motivator; behavioural scientists give greater weight to non-monetary motives. Neither extreme is universally valid. Money must be meaningful, fairly related to work and sufficiently distinguish performance if it is to encourage greater effort.

Its motivational limits follow from different employee circumstances. Once essential needs are satisfied, extra pay may matter less than achievement, respect or belonging. Increases may become expected rather than exceptional; employees compare rewards with colleagues; and pay alone does not remove poor supervision or unsatisfying work. The ability of money to influence effort also depends on whether the employee sees a reliable link between performance and reward.

PAST QUESTION — 2019_1 Q5, 15 marks — Discuss five limitations of money as a motivator.

Answer: (1) Money does not satisfy every employee need, especially belonging, achievement and self-respect. (2) Its attraction differs between individuals and between stages of life or income; those with basic needs met may value it less. (3) A cash increase can quickly become an expected part of pay, weakening its incentive effect. (4) Inequitable payment can cause resentment rather than higher motivation. (5) Money will not motivate performance effectively when staff see little connection between extra effort and the reward, or when the job itself remains frustrating and uninteresting.

3.2 Why do People Work?

Two contrasting views are presented: **work as a means to an end** (to earn income and support a desired lifestyle) and **work as an end in itself** (to gain fulfilment, identity and satisfaction). Individuals may hold both views. The significance of work also varies with social values, personal needs, employment conditions and relationships.

3.3 How to Motivate and Improve Employee Performance

Managers should actively influence the motivational climate rather than expect good attitudes to arise automatically. They should understand their own motives and how staff see them; recognise different employee needs; establish fair, comprehensible performance standards and rewards; involve people appropriately; provide feedback, recognition, training and meaningful work; and adapt approaches to the situation.

Unit Quick Revision: Money provides purchasing power and can symbolise status or success, but it does not replace fair treatment, recognition, meaningful work and good management.

UNIT 5: ORGANISATIONAL STRUCTURE

1.0 Introduction

Organisational structure arranges work, people, reporting lines and authority so that resources and efforts are coordinated towards goals.

3.1 The Meaning and Nature of Organisational Structure

The **structure** of an organisation is the pattern of jobs, reporting relationships, responsibilities and communication channels connecting members. It permits division of labour and coordination of activities, and gives a basis for planning, direction and control.

3.1.1 Meaning of Organisational Structure

An effective structure involves a relationship pattern that allocates tasks and clarifies work roles while directing the activities of different employees towards common purposes. Effective structures should support performance, cooperation and appropriate decision-making.

3.1.2 Dimensions of Structure

Child identifies six dimensions: (1) **allocation of individual tasks and responsibilities**; (2) **formal reporting relationships**, authority levels and span of control; (3) **grouping of sections and departments**; (4) **communication, integration and participation systems**; (5) **delegation of authority and monitoring**; and (6) **performance appraisal and reward systems**. Mintzberg also examines work specialisation, standardisation, unit grouping, unit size, coordination, delegation and specialist decision-making. Information technology may change these design choices.

3.2 Levels of Organisational Structure

Parsons identifies three interrelated levels: **technical level**—actual operational tasks such as making products or providing services; **managerial (organisational) level**—coordinating technical work, obtaining resources and administering internal activities; and **community (institutional) level**—setting broad objectives and relating the organisation to outside agencies and society, as with governing boards or trustees. The levels link day-to-day work to wider organisational purpose.

PAST QUESTION — 2019_1 Q6(a), 5 marks — State the objectives of organisational structure.

Answer: Organisational structure aims to divide work clearly, allocate responsibilities and authority, establish reporting and communication channels, coordinate departments and groups, reduce confusion and duplication, and direct organisational activities towards agreed objectives.

3.3 Dimensions of People–Organisation Relationship

Employees need a clear link between their contributions and the organisation’s objectives. The unit stresses clarification of aims, clarification of tasks and intelligent division of work. These help employees understand what work is expected and how it relates to the efforts of others.

3.3.1 Clarification of Objectives

Clear organisational goals guide the allocation of tasks and the design of departments. Employees should understand what the organisation is seeking to achieve so that separate activities contribute to common results.

3.3.2 Clarification of Tasks

Duties, authority, responsibilities, standards and accountability should be described precisely enough to avoid uncertainty or overlap between positions.

3.3.3 The Division of Work

The stages are **eight bases** on which tasks or activities may be grouped: **(1) major purpose or function, (2) product or service, (3) location or geographical area, (4) nature of work, (5) time, (6) common processes, (7) staff employed or specialised skills, and (8) customers to be served.** Organisations may combine several methods. Decisions should consider coordination, economy, clear responsibility, employee satisfaction and risks of conflict.

PAST QUESTION — 2024_1 Q3(a), 10 marks — Mention eight ways work can be divided, and explain any three.

Answer: Eight bases are (1) major function or purpose, (2) products or services, (3) geographical location, (4) nature of work, (5) time or shifts, (6) common processes and equipment, (7) type of staff or specialist expertise, and (8) groups of customers served. For example, division by function creates departments such as personnel and accounts; division by location creates regional or branch units; division by customer creates groups handling retail, corporate or other distinct customers.

3.4 Forms of Relationship in Organisation

Line relationships: direct vertical authority from superior to subordinate. **Functional relationships:** specialist or advisory contacts, such as a personnel expert supporting departments without general line authority over them. **Staff relationships:** advisory or personal-assistant roles acting on behalf of senior officers. **Lateral relationships:** communication and consultation between positions at similar levels or in different departments.

PAST QUESTION — 2019_1 Q6(b), 5 marks — Write short notes on line relationships.

Answer: A line relationship is a direct superior–subordinate authority relationship running vertically through the organisational hierarchy. The superior gives direction and has accountability for a subordinate's work. It clarifies who reports to whom and supports the principle of unity of command.

3.5 Types of Organisational Structure

Important forms are **line** arrangements, **functional** structures (departments around specialist activities), **project** structures (temporary teams assembled for defined work) and **matrix** structures (employees may report both through a function and to a project leader). Matrix arrangements promote coordination across specialties but may create dual reporting, authority ambiguity and communication complexity.

3.6 Common Features of Organisations

Four features discussed are: **(1) organisational subsystems**—interrelated units that convert inputs into outputs; **(2) socio-technical system**—the joint functioning of people/social relationships and equipment/work methods; **(3) interaction with the environment**—continual exchange with economic, social and other external forces; and **(4) situational organisation**—the structure must reflect the circumstances of each organisation. The **contingency approach** argues that there is no universal best structure; a suitable arrangement depends on technology, external conditions, tasks and purpose.

3.7 Influence of Technology on Organisation

Technology includes **machine technology** (equipment, physical processes and work layout) and **knowledge technology** (methods, systems and procedures). It changes job design, teamwork, skills, pace of work, autonomy, supervision and information flow. New technology should be implemented with attention to both technical efficiency and the needs, health and behaviour of staff.

3.8 Problems of Work Organisation

Organisational problems include sources of difficulty such as **limited resources**, **departmentalisation and specialisation**, dependence of one worker's tasks on another, **role conflict**, inequitable treatment, and **violation of territory** or areas regarded as belonging to individuals or groups. Departments can become preoccupied with their own targets, creating conflict over cooperation, priorities, authority and resources.

PAST QUESTION — 2019_1 Q6(c), 5 marks — Explain problems of departmentalisation and specialisation in a work organisation.

Answer: Specialised departments may focus narrowly on their own objectives instead of the organisation's wider goals. Their different priorities, work routines and attitudes can obstruct cooperation and information sharing. Work interdependence can cause delays and blame when one department relies on another. Competition for scarce resources and disagreement over responsibility may also produce conflict.

Unit Quick Revision: Structure divides work and coordinates effort. Eight bases of division; four relationship types: line, functional, staff, lateral. Structures: line, functional, project and matrix. Departmental conflict often comes from divided priorities, limited resources and role uncertainty.

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